



Connecting Loose Ends: Integrating Science into Psychoanalytic Theory

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Abstract

Freud wanted to be a scientist but fell short of this goal in several ways: first by attempting to make psychoanalysis consistent with Newtonian physics, second by not being rigorous with the scientific method, and finally, by responding to political and social needs. As a result, science did not welcome psychoanalysis into its fold. Fortunately, this is changing. In the years since Freud's death, two science-based psychoanalytic theories have developed: attachment theory and affect theory. They are both measurable and supported by social psychology, neuroscience, and infant research. We will explore the central importance of affect as well as treatment implications. The work of Bowlby and Tomkins is complementary, and their integration leads to a more complete understanding of psychic phenomena. We will demonstrate how these theorists validate the work of Fairbairn and Winnicott, both of whom remained in the shadow of Freud. Our premise is that the theoretical differences are semantic, based in politics, and that we can bring these theories together should we acknowledge these differences. We will consider how Winnicott's awareness and sensitivity to parental intrusion should be integrated with attachment theory. In doing so, we want to add to Bowlby's idea of "secure attachment" and introduce the concepts of "secure *enough detachment*" and "secure *enough attachment*". The former concept appreciates that not all psychic pain comes from abandonment and that privacy and space are profound emotional needs. The latter concept is an effort to move away from absolutistic taxonomy, a shortcoming of attachment theory.

Keywords Attachment · Affect · Affect regulation · Shame

Does the relationship between one's theories and the way one works with patients matter?... If we accept that thought and feeling and action are connected in complex and subtle ways, then the interplay between one's theories and one's stance toward patients *must* be important. (Demos 1998, p. 68, emphasis in original)

Introduction

In recent years we have seen psychoanalytic psychotherapy become validated and enriched by neuroscience. We suggest that owning and celebrating a more distinct integration

of attachment and affect ideology, theories based in neuroscience, with psychoanalysis would result in improvement of the practice of psychoanalytic psychotherapy. We will explore the central importance of affect as it relates to psychoanalytic treatment. As we know, effective practice requires a strong theoretical framework. This paper will discuss the connection between Attachment and Affect theory and explore how these social science models fit into psychoanalytic treatment.

We will demonstrate how Attachment and Affect theory have strong treatment technique implications. We will examine the thinking of the theorists Silvan Tomkins and Donald Nathanson and how their work introduces the role of affect in psychoanalytic treatment. Pumpian-Mindlin stated that "Psychoanalysis cannot give the final exact answers that science demands, at this time, but the great question is whether science can afford to exclude such important aspects of human activity as psychoanalysis attempts to investigate" (Pumpian-Mindlin 1952, pp. 125–158). We believe that Attachment and Affect theory, social sciences based in scientific study, take another step at bridging the gap.

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Freud's History with Science

We start with an examination of Freudian theory as his theories are still woven into all current theories. His structural and topographical theories are referred to regardless of the type of treatment one provides. Freud, a man of brilliance, contributed a great deal to the understanding of humanity. Freud's thinking was a product of the Age of Reason, which directed his desire to be scientific. Furthermore, there were social constraints that were framed by a need to convince Viennese physicians of the legitimacy of a provocative, incriminating theory. However, his psychoanalytic theory eluded biology, specifically neuroscience, and so his theories remained scientifically unconvincing.

One of Freud's errors was his explicit attempt to match psychoanalytic thinking with Newtonian physics, an attempt aimed at being politically and scientifically correct. Newton stated that there is a fixed amount of energy and matter in the universe; that energy could affect matter and that matter had no energy source of its own. In line with this theory, Freud cleverly divided the psyche into energy, which he called the id or the drives, and matter, which he named the ego and the superego. According to Freud, all motivation originates from the id and all the ego can do is block or redirect the energy to attain its aims. For Freud, pleasure was the release of energy and pain was the build-up of energy that found no release. This pain is referred to as tension.

Hartmann (1964), an ego psychologist and follower of Freud, first attempted to rescue Freud's Newtonian based structural theory with a new idea. He noted how erroneous it was to have a structure, the ego, with no motivational energy of its own. He postulated the concept of 'neutralized energy', an energy originating in the id but cleansed of its id aims and thus made available to the ego. It seems clear, that in order to solve one fundamental problem, he created even worse ones. This was akin to astronomers who insisted the earth was the center of the universe and said the orbits of the stars around the earth had little curlicues. These additional movements were unexplained, but they represented an accurate track of their path through the skies if indeed the earth was where they placed it. In astronomy, Galileo put things right with the Earth's place in the universe, and in psychoanalysis, Einstein destroyed Freud's rationale by discovering that matter *is* energy.

Freud's later theories continued to alienate science. His ideas about female development and penis envy have been ignored by science and ridiculed by culture, and in many ways have colluded with and exacerbated patriarchy (Siebold 2019). One particularly toxic assertion by Freud was the idea of 'the completely analyzed man'. He essentially asserted that eventually one could know their

unconscious and be in control of all their anxieties. In a letter to Ferenczi, a psychoanalyst who sought a humbler theory, Freud essentially dismissed him and diagnosed him with 'neurosis based on the lack of a completed analysis.' Ironically, Freud had been his analyst.

These and other unsupported aspects of Freudian theory led to a schism between psychoanalytic thought and the scientific community, which had consequences. First, many of Freud's great contributions were ignored by science. The enrichment of dialogue that could have helped all disciplines gain insight and knowledge through collegial collaboration was obstructed. A particularly distressing by-product of this schism is that it eventually resulted in insurance companies being skeptical of the value of psychoanalysis. They moved towards favoring behavioral approaches that had a scientific aura, reducing patients to a list of symptoms to be diagnosed and categorized. This led to the burgeoning field of evidence-based practices, a consequence of the anti-analytic movement with social, political, clinical, and fiscal motivations.

We have a further problem with the current state of psychoanalytic theory. As Carveth states:

There appears to be a latent norm operating to the effect that one should not mention the paranoid-schizoid position (let alone Ps) unless one is a Kleinian; one should not discuss "lack," the phallus or the Imaginary, the Symbolic and the Real, unless one is a Lacanian; nor mention the selfobject transferences unless one is a Kohutian. Such an attitude is, of course, essentially unintelligent, but it does offer a certain satisfaction to minds that need the security of working within one coherent system, or that operate more in terms of flags, emblems and badges of identity than of critical reason. (Carveth 2018, p. 93)

Carveth wants theories to critique each other and to root out reifications. The language and thinking we have inherited from Freud tend toward these reifications and is used in ways that fail to appreciate both agency and imagination. Schafer (1976) tried to address this issue with his idea of an action language which acknowledges our patient's creation of good and bad solutions in their lives. He saw that analysts often followed Freud's view that psychopathology was a product of internal conflicts that bedeviled the patient. He did not see patients as fully authoring their own disturbance. Battles between the structures occurred outside the patient's agency. This kind of unscientific description still permeates our field. Model's (2006) book, *Imagination and the Meaningful Brain*, effectively brings science into psychoanalysis by integrating neuroscience, affect theory, and imagination. He wants to expose the badges of honor that each theory uses to feel more secure. In a paper he presented at a Division 39 Conference he had the courage to wonder if there

was much difference between Freud's "repression" and the current fad of dissociation. Like Demos (1998), we see the current fling with trauma being overstated, creating a badge for the "traumatologists". For us, theory is largely metaphor, and such concepts as the superego, self, or internal objects need to be appreciated as imaginative and as descriptive of that which we observe. Like Carveth we think theories, which are hypotheses, need to hybridize, to talk openly with each other, and in the process, grow.

In the spirit of cross-pollination we want to expand the process of tearing down and rebuilding with other disciplines. For this to happen our field needs to signal a willingness to listen and to learn from scientists, artists, sociologists, philosophers, etc. Our focus is narrow and is mostly an appeal to biologists and neuroscientists. We're emphasizing two theories that are more biological in nature, that use scientific observation and conduct studies that are measurable. These are attachment theory and affect regulation theory and they are both works in progress. We feel the work of Damasio (1994) and LeDoux (1998), neuroscientists who became intrigued with psychoanalytic theory, have increased our field's ability to create more meaningful metaphors. We also believe that we are struggling to free ourselves from a Freudian legacy of reification while still appreciating his creativity. We love the spirit of Adam Phillips who is retranslating Freud. He gives sections of the original German texts to artists, writers, and others. His instruction is to not give a literal translation, but to write what you feel it means to you. Curiously, the subjective and objective may be twins. Science and art are necessary to the health of psychoanalytic theory, and our theories need to appeal to both.

This schism is being healed. At the forefront of this change are the ideas espoused by attachment and affect regulation theorists. John Bowlby, initially "air brushed out of history" (Karen 1998) has been brought back into his rightful and respectful place. Neuroscience helped Bowlby to come back into the picture, fully featured. Finally, science and psychoanalysis are becoming bedfellows (Schore 1997; LeDoux 1998; Nathanson 1992; Hill 2015; Modell 2006; van der Kolk 2014; Quillman 2018).

Fairbairn

If Ronald Fairbairn had not been wedded to the language of Freud, he might well have coined the term attachment theory. For Fairbairn (1994), all motivation was aimed at connecting with another, with what he called a 'drive for intimacy'. Whereas Freud saw libido as pleasure seeking, Fairbairn saw it as object seeking. Discharge was not the goal, relationship was.

Fairbairn theorized that in normal development, pleasures are means of finding a secure relationship—they are

not an end in themselves. When pleasure does become an end in itself, it represents a compensation for failures in psychic development and relationships. While reducing tension, it does not repair the underlying damage. Fairbairn summarizes the differences between theories in a patient's complaint to an analyst: "You're always talking about my wanting this and that desire satisfied: but what I really want is a father" (Greenberg and Mitchell 1983, p. 137). His theory seems in touch with reality. Harlow (1985), and his acclaimed wire monkey studies, supported Fairbairn's theories with science. As his studies indicated, "contact comfort" was much more important than simple drive satisfaction.

A second key hypothesis resolves Freud's Newtonian error. For Fairbairn, ego and libido are energy, motivating humans to move towards relationships. He wrote that biologically we are object-seeking creatures that use libido and ego to connect to the other. The libido effectively serves the goals of the ego and pleasure reinforces intimacy. This is profoundly different from the Freudian view that id and ego start out as adversaries. For Freud, the environment would prohibit pleasures sought by the id, and the ego would be caught in the middle, in a sense triangulated and in a bind. Freud envisioned a series of developmental crises—oral, anal, phallic and oedipal—that if resolved led to sublimations. Sublimations were the acceptable compromises between id and ego/superego, wherein satisfaction without conflict could occur. For Fairbairn these "crises" were reframed as opportunities for relatedness and intimacy. There's no Newtonian split that divides us. We just want to love and be loved.

Why were Fairbairn's theories not more influential in moving our field toward a sound scientific stance? Three reasons come to mind. First, he was isolated in Scotland and not well known in the psychoanalytic community. Second, he kept the language of Freud's drive theory while totally changing the meaning of the words—which was semantically chaotic and confusing. And third, some of his other theories were dense and contradictory which made it easier to be dismissive of all of his ideas.

Bowlby

A serendipitous fact connects Fairbairn with Bowlby. They were both acutely aware of the suffering of children who were separated from their families during World War II. These separations were aimed at protecting children by getting them out of London and away from the threat of German bombs. The children were sent to families all over Great Britain. Although absent of malice, one can imagine the consequences of these separations. Both men observed the profound psychological damage being done to these children. Both created theories based on understanding this

damage; theories based on personal observations and on better science.

Bowlby, influenced by the studies of animal behavior being conducted by ethologists, believed that human beings must have bonding behaviors and are prewired for relational experiences (Karen 1998). He, like Fairbairn, saw humans as object seeking. In Bowlby's seminal paper, "The Nature of the Child's Tie to his Mother" (1958), he suggests an *abandonment* of Freud's framing of psychological drives and energies requiring discharge. Different than Fairbairn, Bowlby was willing to *risk* abandonment from the psychoanalytic community by changing the language and conceptualization of psychoanalysis. Interestingly, for Bowlby, abandonment is a distinct etiological feature of psychopathology. Even more interestingly, Bowlby himself is known to have experienced degrees of abandonment (Karen 1998). There is a fine line between the theory and the theorist.

Bowlby was a pioneer in aligning psychoanalysis with social science. He was noted to have had great pride about writing his first psychoanalytic paper, "Forty Four Juvenile Thieves," (Bowlby 1944), which included experimental statistics, something that was unheard of at that point. With Bowlby's willingness to risk his own rejection due to his rejection of Freudian nomenclature, he became "unread, uncited, and unseen, he became the nonperson of psychoanalysis and was lost to his peers for the better part of three decades" (Karen 1998, p. 115). This exile lasted 30 years—until neuroscience brought him back into the fold.

Interestingly, Bowlby's initial observations of how children respond to a lack of maternal attunement through protest, despair, and detachment has recently been used as a psychosocial conceptualization to explain the disconnection that men feel from their vulnerability and relationality and women's disconnection from themselves and their voice (Gilligan and Snider 2018). Once again, Bowlby's theory helps us to understand current psychosocial dilemmas. His theories live on and thrive. Bowlby was an exemplary social scientist, striving for social justice and a new scientifically grounded understanding of what causes psychopathology and how to prevent it.

Attachment Theory Lives On

Bowlby's attachment theory continued to be expanded through work with his colleague Mary Ainsworth, who helped to categorize the attachment experience of infants and developed what are known as the Infant Strange Situation observations (Ainsworth et al. 1978). The research of Ainsworth, et al., led to the formulation of three categories of attachment patterns that relate to how infants respond to the mother's return after a separation. The three categories are 'secure', 'insecure-avoidant', and

'insecure-ambivalent' patterns of attachment. Each category refers to a pattern of attachment that addresses attachment needs. Main and Solomon (1986), in their research building on the Infant Strange Situation, added a fourth category: 'insecure-disorganized/disoriented'. These four attachment categories each result from specific types of parenting experiences and appear to be in place as early as the age of 7 months (Main 1993). The departure from Freudian thought was being fueled by science and now, notably, by women.

Building on the research of Ainsworth and Main, Siegel (1999), in a discussion of infant attachment classifications, noted that emotionally unavailable and unresponsive parenting appears to result in infants' displaying behaviors that minimize the need for proximity and connection with the returning mother, which results in an insecure-avoidant attachment pattern. He added that parenting that is inconsistently available and periodically intrusive results in children who display high levels of anxiety, inconsolability, and interminable proximity seeking upon the return of the parent. This type of parenting resulted in a child's developing an insecure-ambivalent attachment pattern. Finally, he explained that parents with a parenting style marked by disoriented, frightening, and/or frightened communication patterns cause their children to experience a state of dissociation and confusion, which results in an insecure-disorganized attachment pattern. Siegel noted that the parents who are available, responsive, and consistent have infants who are most often securely attached. In general, the infant attachment patterns mirrored the adult attachment patterns of their parents. The science of psychological development continued and was now brought to the psychic world of adults.

Main et al. (1985) hypothesized that infant attachment categories could predict adult attachment patterns. In order to study this, they developed the 'Adult Attachment Interview' and engaged in research that validated this prediction. This research revealed that attachment patterns stay relatively constant throughout one's life. This finding led to increased interest in understanding the implications of these patterns, both theoretically and clinically. Siegel (1999) believes that knowledge of attachment patterns can help us to understand the risk of psychological dysfunction and may help direct intervention strategies. He contributed research to prove that attachment patterns also have neurobiological implications. And so, science was now being integrated into psychoanalysis. Importantly, attachment theory could now be integrated into psychoanalytic practice (Slade 2000; Eagle 1995; Holmes 1993; Lieberman and Zeanah 1999).

Although Bowlby was a pioneer, with the likes of Harlow, Robertson, Trist, Ainsworth, and Main, we still needed to know: What are the motivators of attachment and how do they impact connection, relations, pleasure, and lack thereof?

Fortunately, we have the benefit of the theories of Sylvan Tomkins.

Tomkins and the Role of Affect

Tomkins (1979, 1991) and Tomkins and Smith (1995) integrated psychology, philosophy, sociology, ideology, and culture into a single coherent theory that allowed for extraordinary complexity in considering the human being while still maintaining elegance. Tomkins' theory is a systemic theory, wherein affect, cognition, perception, memory, drive, and behavior are dependent, interdependent, and independent of each other (Demos 1998). His ideas of how the systems could work together or conflict with each other goes deeper in explaining how humans function in the world. Tomkins found that affect was the most compelling system to help to answer the question of what it is that humans want. His answer is very different and more scientifically supported than Freud's and it augmented, *if not amplified*, the value of Bowlby's attachment theory.

Tomkins, like Bowlby, dispensed with Freudian nomenclature. Freud's imaginary structures—id, ego, and super-ego—have no place in Tomkins' work. Tomkins keeps the concept of drive, but he relegates it to a much less influential position. For example, he sees sex as part of a biological drive, but if it were not accompanied by the affect of interest/excitement, nothing would ever happen. Tomkins' main complaint about classical psychoanalytic theory is, as he put it, that it was an “overly imperialistic cognitive theory” (Tomkins and Smith 1995, p. 18). Whereas Freud located motivation as an aspect of cognition and drive, Tomkins saw *affect* as determinative. He stated, “Affect either makes good things better or bad things worse...” (Tomkins and Smith 1995, p. 19), making us care about the things we need to care about, amplifying our needs, and creating urgency. For example, the infant who experiences the hunger drive will have this need amplified by the affect Tomkins calls distress. The distress is what causes the infant to cry and to communicate need to their caretaker. Affect facilitates attachment.

Tomkins' distressed, hungry infant evokes a similar intersubjective experience of distress in the mother. Affect, for Tomkins, occurs in the body and most particularly in the face. He initiated the coding of the facial expressions of each affect and started research on how these expressions were universal among all peoples of the world. For example, the smile is joy and a flushed face looking downward is shame, so our faces communicate our affects both to ourselves and others, consciously or unconsciously. Said another way, mind and body are one and we are often unaware of the complexity of these communications.

Tomkins and Smith (1995), through his own observation of infants, saw affect jumping between one human

and another and noted that it was mostly interpersonal. In many ways, Tomkins was an intersubjective sociologist. He explained the effect of mirror neurons before they had been identified and he had a convincing solution to the mind/body divide. Similar to the current work of van der Kolk (2014), he felt that the body was wired to experience affect. He believed that affect embodies the mind, and that the body supports the affect. It is a system of reciprocity. Interest/excitement can evoke sexual arousal and the arousal will magnify the excitement. Similarly, a smile of joy increases the overall joy of the moment. During the time he was writing, the field of psychology failed to appreciate this. Tomkins wrote:

If, as I believe, the affects are the primary motives of man, the face is the primary site of the affects, the face is the man. Every man has always been interested in faces, comforted by others, bored by some faces, but psychologists have nonetheless been the last to know. (Tomkins and Smith 1995, p. 263)

For Tomkins, Freud misunderstood aspects of what occurs in analysis. The Freudian use of interpretation was understood as essentially cognitive while the facial communication, impeded by the use of the couch, was considered unimportant. Freud was known for being displeased with being stared at all day, so he accommodated his discomfort with the development of self-serving techniques of practice that he incorporated into psychoanalytic theory.

Tomkins questioned the science behind Freud's theories, and his failure to identify the discrete affects. Freud mistakenly identified aggression and anxiety as subsuming a number of affects (Tomkins and Smith 1995). Derivatives of aggression include the affects anger, disgust and/or contempt, while anxiety includes distress and/or fear. Freud saw the discrete affects of joy and interest as by-products of the libidinal drive and not as biological affects.

Tomkins also disputes Freud's unscientific view of catharsis. Freud had noted how a distressed and angry infant would relentlessly cry until he/she was calm. He explained the state of calm as the release of tension that reestablished the baby's equilibrium. Tomkins had another view, believing the baby was defeated and left in a state of quiet, parasympathetic, exhausted misery. Or worse yet, a state in which the baby has frozen his affects, what today is described as a dissociated state. Like Bowlby described in his model of “protest, despair and detachment”, the exhausted misery is resignation. This was revisited, and further proven, in Tronick et al. (1975) “still faced studies” in which infants unexpectedly engaging with a seemingly misattuned and disinterested mother would eventually slip into a dazed state. There is no satisfaction in that.

Tomkins was not a clinical psychologist. He trained at Harvard as an experimental psychologist and later described

himself as a “personologist”, someone who wanted to understand what made people who they were. He became an acute observer, skilled at knowing the feeling states of others. A serendipitous sabbatical at the time of the birth and development of his own son deeply aided his project and the depth of his understanding of affect. He had no choice but to observe his son. As Tomkins watched his son’s face, he learned about the wiring of affect.

Tomkins started with a belief in science and, like Bowlby, accepted Darwin’s theory of evolution. He stated “that natural selection has operated on man to heighten three distinct classes of affect—affect for the preservation of life, affect for people, and affect for novelty.” (Tomkins 1991, p. 26). All three goals are essential for the survival of the human race and all are inter-related. Thus relationships/attachments are motivated by affect for survival and affect for people. At birth, they are synonymous. Tomkins’ brilliant addition of novelty acknowledges the human motivation to risk trying new things and find ways to master new challenges. Without it, survival and relationships would not have been likely enough for the continuation of our species.

What are the discrete affects that Tomkins elucidated? From most positive to most negative they are joy, interest, startle, shame, distress, disgust, contempt—which he also referred to as *dissmell*—fear, and anger. Each is related to a specific neural firing activity that helps give scientific legitimacy to his theory. Joy and interest are positive affects, startle is neutral, and the rest are negative with shame being the least negative and anger/rage the most. For Tomkins, shame was most significant among the negative affects, not because it was less painful, but because of its social importance. Shame results from being a disappointment in someone else’s eyes. The disappointment can be real or imagined. Shame motivates the individual to remedy the situation by trying to improve himself in the eyes of the other. In general, this is good for the individual and good for society. It is a powerful way for parents to teach infants and children their values and, when done in a spirit of love, will usually lead to a lesson learned, a re-connection, and a sense of joy and pride. In a later section we will examine what happens when shame become pathological.

According to Tomkins, affects are biological: an awareness of the biological affect is a feeling, the biographical histories of feelings are emotions, and lastly, chronic emotions are moods. Although not a definitive Tomkins’ conceptualization, we posit that affects lead to the formation of attachments.

Tomkins sees nature and nurture as two poles that interact with each other (Tomkins 1979). With this interaction in mind, he developed a theory of personhood. He calls all the affect laden/significant events of one’s life ‘scenes,’ and studied the way that these scenes become imprinted in memory. The memories of these scenes may, or may not,

be conscious and may, or may not, be accurate reflections of what occurred. These scenes include powerful emotions, cognitions, body states, and memories. The synthesis of different scenes forms a ‘script.’ Scripts are a set of rules and expectations; something Wilhelm Reich would have called ‘character structure’, or other theorists ‘the self’ (Kohut 1971). The script is our way of seeing the world—it brings the past into the present and projects it into the future. Importantly, scripts result in anticipation of specific affects, similar to self-fulfilling prophecies, Eric Berne’s games that people play (Berne 1964), or idioms of attachment (Erdman and Crocker 2019).

A good therapy session that is psychologically meaningful will be a scene experienced under the influence of a script. Thus, if the patient’s script is paranoid, the session will be seen from that perspective. However, it is also possible for the scene to *change* the script. If the paranoid patients finds themselves moved by the session, and has a positive sense of trust, then they might become a little less paranoid. Here is a science-based theory that explains how lived experience with a therapist has the potential for change.

Tomkins (1979) had a revelatory moment sometime after articulating his concept of script. He discovered that each individual’s life script was dominated by a specific affect. For example, a disgust script could lead to the following type of behavior: you imagine a new relationship will solve everything, you emotionally jump in, and at the first disappointment you spit the relationship out. Ultimately, the disgust leads to anger toward the newly devalued other and/or to yourself for having high hopes.

The idea of affects supporting and influencing scripts gives us an intriguing vision of mental health and illness. Scripts featuring joy/contentment or interest/excitement are positive and can lead to healthy attachments. As noted earlier, shame hopes for relationship and disgust takes relationship in but emphatically spits it out. More problematic is *dissmell*/contempt in which you do not hope for relationship but avoid it. Fear and anger can be relationally destructive. The affect of distress has complexity. In some cases, it is non-pathological, i.e. mourning; in other cases, distress can lead to clinical depression.

Affect can permeate cultures, ideologies, and politics. Like personal scripts, certain affects are manifest in social groupings, be it a family, a culture, etc. This concept is particularly evident in Tomkins writings about the Republican Party. Tomkins was passionate about the destructiveness of Senator Jesse Helms, who he thought was dominated by a *dissmell*/contempt script (Tomkins and Smith 1995). Tomkins believed conservative Republicans to be a group who shunned those who weren’t like them, holding their noses, and not caring if the shunned survived (Tomkins and Smith 1995). He warned that this ideology might ultimately lead to the destruction of the human race. The diagnostic strategy

for judging the pathology of families, ideologies, and cultures in regards to the dominant affect is the same as it is on the individual level. These affects go from constructive to destructive. If anger/hate is the motivation it will be destructive to the individual and/or the group. It negates secure attachment for one and all. Implicit in this value system is the idea that positive affect leads to relatedness among humans which supports the goals of survival, connection to people, and the experience of novelty.

The affect that Tomkins focused most of his attention on was shame (900 pages to be exact). He felt that failures to resolve shame led to the formation of scripts, which negatively influence relatedness. These scripts can manifest as consciously experienced low self worth or grandiosity. Shame dominated life scripts lead to destructive consequences.

Nathanson

Nathanson (1992) further developed Tomkins' conceptualization of shame scripts into what he called the "compass of shame" (p. 305). The four points of the compass of shame are (1) attack self, (2) attack other, (3) withdrawal and, (4) avoidance. In attack self mode you blame yourself for the shameful experience; in attack other mode, you disown your shame by shaming the person who disturbed you in the first place. If the person who disturbed you is not accessible, a displacement towards another person comes in handy. A good example of this is the infamous employer yelling at the employee who in turn yells at his or her spouse who then berates their child only to find the traumatized family pet under the bed. A withdrawal script is the search for hiding after feeling shame, wishing that a hole in the ground would swallow you up so you'd never be seen again. Lastly, an avoidance script is living a circumscribed life to avoid all shame situations. This can be done behaviorally or with the assistance of substances. Self-medication and numbing are the essence of this script.

One author shared the compass of shame with his group therapy patients asking that they locate themselves on the compass. Group members, in the clinical judgment of the author, perfectly located themselves on the compass of shame. With added mindfulness, each group member was able to use their understanding of their shame manifestation to change relational patterns to themselves and to others. In the depth of our psyches, we know our defenses. Clearly Tomkins' and Nathanson's work is relevant to psychologists, sociologists, political scientists, and biologists. His theory invites comments from all these disciplines and has also supported a rationale for many schools of psychoanalytic thought. In particular, it is consistent with affect theory and attachment theory.

Treatment Implications of Attachment and Affect Theory

Erdman and Crocker (2019) describe aptly, the treatment implications of affect theory and how it is interwoven with affect regulation and attachment theory:

Tomkins (1979, 1987, 1991) conceived of the idea of script theory, which he used to explain character development. According to Tomkins (1979), the "basic element in life as it is lived," the fundamental unit we use to define reality, is a "scene," consisting of "at least one affect and one object of that affect" (p. 211). As may be guessed, Tomkins (1979) holds that scenes are strung together in a "script" (p. 217) which provides orientation about how to live, communicate, and make choices in our various environments. Scripts and plots result in what Tomkins and Smith (1995) termed "sets of ordering rules for the interpretation, evaluation, prediction, production, or control of scenes" (p. 334).

Stern (1985) in his infant research came up with a concept similar to Tomkins' scripts: "Representations of Interactions that are Generalized" (p. 98), or RIGS for short. According to Stern, A RIGS unit, integrating perception, affect, and cognition, is formed and would in turn facilitate the intake and processing of future life events, a concept that mirrors Tomkins' scripts. Effective treatment must identify and treat the script that directs how one lives their life. These scripts or RIGS often operate as self-fulfilling prophecies that cause many individuals to feel stuck and stagnant in their lives.

Slade (2000) felt strongly that effective treatment must take into account attachment styles. She believed that particular attachment styles also imply a character style that needs to be taken into account in order to note how their style would impact decisions around technique and approach in the treatment. Crocker (2015) notes:

Slade (2000) states that avoidant attachment can present as either narcissistic or schizoid. Slade's idea of these two types of avoidant styles parallels a similar theory by Bartholomew (1990), who posited that there were two types of avoidant attachment: dismissive and fearful. Similar to Slade's narcissistically inclined, avoidant individual, individuals with a dismissive-avoidant style present a positive sense of self, albeit compensatory and negative sense of other. The other type according to Bartholomew is the fearful-avoidant style, which includes a negative sense of self and other, similar to Slade's schizoid individual.

We see that the incorporation of Tomkins and Smith's affect theory (1995) and Hill's affect regulation theory

(2015) combined with Slade's view on attachment theory (2000) can greatly influence our work as we interfold science into psychoanalysis. Hill's work suggests a close observation of affective expression or lack thereof in order to know how to work with the patient to enter into a window of affect tolerance in order to make use of the psychotherapeutic right brain-to-right brain implicit communications. Hill also incorporates attachment theory in understanding how various attachment styles come with various affective experiences, which can be in the window of tolerance, or can be hyperactivation (sympathetic response), often associated with an insecure-ambivalent style, and deactivation (parasympathetic response), often associated with more of an insecure-avoidant style. Affect and attachment theory help the clinician to move away from left brain-to-left brain interventions and put the focus where is necessary: Affect. Herein lies the good work of clinicians as they integrate social science into their work.

Winnicott and "Secure Detachment"

Beatrice Beebe created video recordings that were poignantly revealing as to the nature of face-to-face mother–infant interactions. Her recordings reinforced the value of Tomkins's affect theory. In her video, Beebe presents a Winnicottian 'good enough mother' interacting with her 4-month-old son. At first, the video shows a 2-min scene in which you see a mother involved with her child. At normal speed, the mother and child seem connected and positively attuned. Next, you see the same scene played at a much slower speed and realize that what seemed simple was actually complex. As Tomkins described it, you could see multiple changes of affect on the baby's face, and on the mother's too, often occurring within milliseconds. Joy, interest, and distress could easily be identified as each affect was shared. Of particular interest to us was how the baby's distress could be triggered by the mother's momentary loss of interest or by the mother trying too hard to engage her son. How do we explain what appears mildly contradictory?

Winnicott's hypothesis is that our two greatest psychological needs are *to be seen* and *to be hidden* (1965). Optimal parenting occurs when a caretaker adapts to these needs. The infant in an awakened state needs emotional interaction and also space for reverie. These maternal provisions allow the infant their psychological birth and sense of self. Winnicott describes the infant as needing space for "going-on-being" (1960, p. 586) and failures in giving the infant this protection can lead to annihilation anxiety. This anxiety has nothing to do with death but rather the fear of not coming into existence. All maternal failures are felt as intrusions into the space needed for "going-on-being" whether they derive from too little care, too much care, or general misattunement.

Secure Enough Attachment and Secure Enough Detachment

Whereas Winnicott describes all maternal failures as impingements, attachment theory describes them all as abandonments, as breaking the bond between mother and child. Winnicott has a slight advantage in that he explicitly calls abandonment a form of intrusion. Attachment theory needs a new concept to make clear its awareness of this duality. We can again look back to Winnicott who provides us with a solution to the absolutistic taxonomy of attachment theory that has left us wanting of something less static and more fluid. The authors are suggesting a solution could be the terms "*secure enough attachment*" and "*secure enough detachment*." The former being the state in which we feel close and connected enough to function and even enjoy our lives. The latter is the state of being alone while simultaneously with the other also a state of contentment. This latter concept appreciates the attachment necessary for a healthy aloneness and a sense of being boundaried. Both conceptualizations are interrelated.

For patients who have experienced the consequences of misattunement, psychotherapy provides reparation. Nathanson, using affect theory, conceptualized ways in which this could occur. The space of 'secure enough detachment' is implicit in Nathanson's (1986) concept of an "empathic wall." (p. 176). He sees therapists as having to protect themselves from too much empathy, a protection that is affect regulating for both patient and therapist; or as Racker (1968) puts it, that keeps you from "drowning" in the countertransference (p. 144). Kinston, a British psychoanalyst, argues that some shame, and a natural empathy for shame, offers us a haven or safe place (Nathanson 1987). One of the authors worked with a patient whose life script was dominated by shame. The author learned that to look directly at the patient during sessions would activate this shame. Once realized, the author began angling his own chair so that his gaze would fall three or four feet in front of the patient. Another author offered a seating arrangement to a patient so that he could see out the window, a place of escape he so needed. In both of these examples, the intensity of closeness brought about by the therapeutic connection could easily be overwhelming and invasive. By allowing some psychic space, the therapists provided secure enough detachment.

We feel that Winnicott and attachment theory value privacy, safety, and connectedness. What we wish is that attachment theorists would be clearer about the need for a hidden space. Secure attachment is necessary for this space to come into being. We have come to see secure detachment, an explicit appreciation of a need for privacy, as an integral part of secure attachment.

Conclusion

Schafer (1976) was deeply concerned about the language of psychoanalysis. His particular issue was how Freudian parlance made the patient a victim of their internal conflicts, something which they had no control over. He was also disturbed by a general tendency toward reifications that changed abstract hypotheses into solid facts. In an attempt to resolve these issues, Schafer created a language for psychoanalysts, what he called an ‘action language,’ which emphasized a patient’s agency in both their illness and health. It was also aimed at unifying different schools of psychoanalytic thought by providing a common way of articulating clinical work. Unfortunately, his action language was largely ignored.

Schafer has inadvertently taught us that in order to find cohesiveness between different analytic schools, we need a common language. The authors think the following list contains ideas that are almost equivalent:

Tompkins—affects support survival, need for people
 Bowlby—attachment
 Object Relations Theorists—object relations
 Interpersonalists—interpersonal relationships
 Kohutians—mirroring/idealizing/intersubjectivity
 Freudians—transference/countertransference

Some theorists have acknowledged the overlap and difference in semantics. Greenberg and Mitchell (1983) wrote about the evolution of object-relations theory and how it’s contained in other theories. Likewise, Fonagy et al. (2008) has demonstrated the ubiquity of attachment theory.

There are also many psychoanalytic theorists who have tried to make their contributions unique. For example, Kohut (1971) tried to emphasize the differentiation of narcissists from neurotics and how they needed a particular clinical approach. In this approach, the analyst would provide the missing parental functions, i.e., a mirror or an object to idealize. Oddly, he did not see these functions as a relationship and did not credit Winnicott for having described the mother as providing the same reflective environment as mirroring (Greenberg and Mitchell 1983). Yet, as we understand this, both theorists describe the parenting relationships needed for mental health/secure attachment/affect regulation. The differences in the theories are smaller than they appear.

The whole concept of narcissism is simplified when considered through the lens of affect regulation theory. As Shaw (2013) explains, narcissism in its unhealthy form is always the result of failed parental relationships. He states “how deeply rooted narcissism is in relationship trauma” (Shaw 2013, p. 15). He further notes how

narcissism takes many forms, more than just the overt and inverted categories. Thus, misattuned early relationships promote narcissism and, as widely known, narcissists tend to be shame-prone or shame-less. Nathanson’s thinking supports Shaw’s hypothesis while narrowing the focus. His theory is that being overly shamed tends to create a family of scripts, each dealing with this difficult affect. The shame demands a solution and, if extreme, it is a script called narcissism. Like Shaw, Nathanson sees the possibility of different scripts or different characterological ways of handling the hurt in shame, thus his compass of shame. Attachment theory also explains narcissism as a type of insecure attachment that can be anxious, avoidant inverted, avoidant aggressive, or some combination of all (Slade 2000).

While most contemporary psychoanalytic theories seem quite similar the same is not as true for Classical Freudians. Here, the efficacy of the interpretation is given prominence over the relationship. As Fenichel (1939) explains, the positive transference is what motivates the patient to do the challenging work of analysis but in the end that too must be analyzed as a resistance. The authors’ contention is that a Freudian analysis is effective because it is an intense *relationship*, and as Mitchell has pointed out, an interpretation is an act of relating. (Mitchell, personal communication). Clearly the Freudian, through his words, his tone of voice, face, and even shifts in his chair, modulate the intense affect in the patient. These experiences promote more secure attachment and better affect regulation. A good session is, in Tomkins’ language, a scene that can modify any scripts containing a defensive structure or insecure attachment. This is true of all good analysts in most schools of thought.

Ultimately, we are not suggesting that every theory is identical. The choices each clinician makes are complex, personal, and influenced by theory. Demos states, “If we accept that thought and feeling and action are connected in complex and subtle ways, then the interplay between one’s theories and one’s stance toward patients *must* be important.” (Teicholz and Kreigman 1998, p. 68, emphasis included). This paper represents the concerns of accepting theory unsupported by science and impacted by politics and social pressures. Bowlby, Tomkins, and Nathanson broke through political pressures and were marginalized for doing so. Bowlby has been brought back into the fold due to neuropsychology and it is time that the same is true for Tomkins and Nathanson. As Schore and Schore (2008) noted, attachment theory is essentially an affect regulation theory. Both of these theories are based in neuropsychology and social science. We believe the integration of these theories into psychoanalytic thinking will support and enhance quality clinical work. It is time for psychoanalysis to be wedded with social science. At the same time, we appreciate how differences get exaggerated and similarities get lost. It is best to

note semantic differences and nuance in how we work rather than create contentiousness and division in theories. If so, we may just heal the splits that have divided us.

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